

Philosophical Propaedeutic

in

Outline

by

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Published by the Gyldendal Bookshop (F. Hegel).

Thiele's Printing House.

1857.

Adamant homines scientias et contemplationes particulares, aut quia autores et inventores se earum credunt, aut quia plurimum in illis operæ posuerunt, iisque maxime assueverunt. Hujusmodi vero homines, si ad philosophiam et contemplationes universales se contulerint, illas ex prioribus phantasiis detorquent et corrumpunt.

FRANC. BACO.

[Men grow attached to particular sciences and speculations, either because they fancy themselves their authors and inventors, or because they have bestowed the greatest labour upon them and become most habituated to them. But if men of this sort betake themselves to philosophy and universal speculations, they distort and corrupt these out of their former fancies. — Francis Bacon.]

Contents

Introduction	1
I. Theory of Knowledge	2
A. Sensualism	4
B. Idealism	12
C. Factual Knowledge	29

Introduction.

The philosophical propaedeutic sets itself to answer two fundamental questions: *what is philosophy? what validity can be ascribed to philosophy as a science?*

To answer these questions the propaedeutic must characterize philosophy by pointing out the shapes which it has assumed at its various stages of development; the general fundamental concept will then be determined more closely as it runs through significant stages. The propaedeutic, in letting philosophy come to be for contemplation in its own way, must everywhere take up something historically given. But, although the historical is made use of, we can here give neither an epitome of the history of philosophy in its entirety, nor a separate detailed treatment of individual, arbitrarily chosen principal parts on their own account; the historical must be grasped and used in such a way that, within the connection determined by the nature of the matter, it illuminates the tasks that arise, and serves the totality.

To characterize philosophy as a science in its relation to the other sciences, it is doubtless necessary to enter more closely into an investigation of that which brings about the distinctive character of the various sciences, and thus to point out the principle of division on which their separation essentially rests; but since the determination of what is universally scientific is and remains the main thing, the treatment of the mutual relation of the diverse sciences cannot take up the particulars of that ramification to such a degree that there should here be any question of an encyclopædia of the sciences.

Insofar as philosophy itself is a science articulated into definite members, it will likewise, for the sake of the fundamental concept, be necessary to point out, within this science's own domain, the inner connection of the larger divisions with the articulating principle; but since every survey in which the individual parts are not at the same time treated with some detail necessarily becomes superficial, the propaedeutic must, instead of setting itself the task of an encyclopædic presentation of the disciplines of philosophy, rather lay out its principal parts in such a way that, by a more detailed treatment of each division on its own, it may find occasion to illuminate the systematic structure from one or another definite side, and thereby gradually open an insight into the architectonic relations of the whole.

In order to comprise all the separate considerations under one comprehensive point of view, the propaedeutic begins with the conceptual determination that philosophy is a scientific theory of consciousness.

The theory of consciousness shows what it means to become conscious of something, and must to that extent distinguish between consciousness itself and that which comes to consciousness. This distinction in turn demands the union of the distinguished sides. An empty consciousness, a consciousness that is conscious of nothing, is a contradiction: consciousness must have a content.

Although consciousness and its content are to that extent essentially the same — since the passivity and activity of consciousness are always determined in likeness with that which, under this passivity and activity, is taken up into consciousness — they are nevertheless in reality so different that the scientific orientation depends on whether attention is directed especially either to the consciousness determined by the content, or to the objectivity of the content set over against consciousness.

Since the side of consciousness is everywhere, and must be, the predominant thing in philosophy, it is necessary to investigate the fundamental relation a) between consciousness and its content in general, b) between consciousness and the particular content, c) between consciousness and the absolute content. The main parts of the propaedeutic corresponding to this are then I) Theory of Knowledge, II) Theory of Science, and III) Doctrine of Ideas.

I. **Theory of Knowledge.**

§ 1.

Knowledge presupposes identity of consciousness and content; as the object is, so too must consciousness be: “the like is understood by the like.” Insofar as consciousness is sensing, the object is sensible; insofar as it is thinking, thinkable.

The essential difference between sensation and thought can be recognized by the difference between the Positive and the Negative. The object of sensation is, without regard to whether the sense is outer or inner, always something immediate, existing

in the moment, and to that extent a Positive: the Negative cannot be sensed. By suspending immediacy and positing negation, thought arises; one can think *about* the immediate, but its immediacy cannot be immediately thought. Insofar as thought begins with the immediate, the understanding shows itself as the intellectual sense. The sensing understanding is not a thinking, but the immediate presupposition of thinking, a thinking in possibility: actual thinking begins with the Negative. In its pure, qualitative opposition to the immediacy of sensation, the negation of thought is itself immediate. The immediately Positive and the immediately Negative bound one another; by this bounding they mutually determine each other. When it is asked what the Positive is, the answer must be given by means of a Negative, *omnis determinatio est negatio* [all determination is negation]; likewise, on the other hand, the Positive must be presupposed when negation and the Negative are to be determined.

As sensing, consciousness is essentially passive; here it holds that “all our knowing is a finding, receiving, and beholding (*scimus, quia accepimus* [we know because we have received])”; as thinking, consciousness is essentially self-active. As regards self-activity, all our knowing (Cf. Sibbern: *Om Erkjendelse og Granskning*) is “a doing and producing (*scimus, quia facimus* [we know because we make])”. The sensible is objectified in representation and image, the thinkable in insight and conception.

Sensation is not merely heterogeneous with thought: what can be sensed cannot be thought, and conversely, what can be thought cannot be sensed; but the individual senses are also mutually heterogeneous: what can be seen cannot be heard, what can be heard cannot be felt. Nevertheless these opposites too determine one another mutually. The audible can be determined by the visible (sound-figures), the sensible by the thinkable. In the passivity of the sensing consciousness there is an activity, in the thinking activity there is a passivity: the representation is obtained only insofar as consciousness itself forms it; thought determines only insofar as it is led, compelled, and determined by that which is thought; the sensing consciousness is thinking, the thinking sensing; the acting I is passive, the passive acting (*scientia et potentia in idem concidunt* [knowledge and power coincide in one and the same]).

Since it is now one and the same consciousness that is both passive and active, both sensing and thinking, and since one and the same object can have both sensible and thinkable properties, it follows from this that there must not only be an infinite reciprocal relation between sensation and thought, but that this reciprocal relation

must even be able to set itself up so differently that now it is thought that is absorbed into sensation, now conversely sensation that vanishes into thought.

Insofar as thought is absorbed into sensation in such a way that only the sensible in the object is granted validity, we get a one-sided sensuous tendency: *Sensualism*; the corresponding one-sidedness then consists in this, that sensation is grasped as the fleeting presupposition of thought, so that only the thinkable in the object, the negative essence, the pure concept, is acknowledged as the True: *Idealism*. The infinite reciprocal relation of sensation and thought will therefore first become evident when Sensualism and Idealism have each contributed their share to a closer determination of the truth in a double-sided *Factual Knowledge*.

A.

Sensualism.

§ 2.

The consciousness of the individual begins with an immediate unity of sensation and thought; but the advance of knowledge is conditioned by thought's being brought out on its own in its opposition to sensation. Now so long as the equilibrium between the two expressions of consciousness is preserved, so long as the agreement between the sensible and the intellectual is still maintained, individuality is happy, and its cultivation beautiful. But with growing abstraction, as the imagination really begins to work over and transform the elements of sensation, thought becomes restless, a tension sets in, and the equilibrium is lost. The lost equilibrium — whose mark is that now the intellectual, now the sensible, now an overwrought spirituality, now a bold naturalness, has gained the upper hand — will then be re-established, and the equilibrium thus re-established be lost again.

Corresponding transitions are seen in the history of philosophy.

Greek philosophy begins among the Ionians (Thales, Anaximander, Anaximenes) with a naïve cognition of the non-sensible in the sensible; thought seeks the principle of existence, and also divines that the principle must be “something unbounded,” yet finds it most nearly represented by a given sensible material: “Water,” “Air.” This

going-together of thought with sensuousness is not yet Sensualism. Thought is here so far from feeling the pressure of the senses' preponderance that it is precisely on the point of raising itself above the parcelling-out of the sensible; it is Oneness that thought has here grasped with youthful courage, as it first attempts a soaring flight toward the universal.

Only when thought has left immediacy behind, has consumed its content, and is weary of mirroring itself in itself, does Sensualism emerge. Sensualism is a conscious opposition, an express counterweight to the empty conceptual essence: only after Greek thought (Pythagoreans, Eleatics, Plato) had volatilized the material of sensation, held fast to the pure essence, and tried its hand at all manner of abstractions, does Aristotle assert experience, and the repressed Sensualism then properly comes forward in the theory of knowledge of the Stoics and Epicureans.

The stages which in this respect characterize the directions of the movement in Greek philosophy repeat themselves on an even larger scale in the universal history of philosophy.

In contrast to the Middle Ages, antiquity on the whole exhibits the beautiful equilibrium and natural unity of sensation and thought; but in the Middle Ages abstract spirituality commits such an overreach that a reaction thereby called forth has been able to lead the modern age to a denial of spirit whose extent, sharpness, and inner transparency is unknown among the ancients.

In the Middle Ages, when the natural is only something corruptible, the sensible only something sinful, the present only a deception, it is naturally impossible to know things as they are. Frightened by fancy and feeling, the thought of science enters the service of faith, and is cowed by the supernatural; the cowed thought finds only a formal freedom in the logical. Hence the emptiness, the subtlety, the word-splitting, and the scientific barrenness in which Scholasticism ends. Instead of grasping a reality, and nourishing itself on the working-up of a digestible material, reflection fed upon itself, and was tormented by hunger.

The efforts that scientific hunger called forth drew minds to nature in two mutually opposed directions, a speculative and an empirical; yet in such a way that something of the one can be found again in the other.

The speculative direction. Insofar as there can be any talk of a speculative Sensualism, we find such among the Italian philosophers: Telesio, Cardano, Bruno, and others.

With a decided predilection for the forms of ancient philosophy, these thinkers were inspired by the assurance of nature's identity with spirit, by the contemplation of that divine life which animates the world-organism, the living unity that works through all things.

That Aristotelian categories are applied to the interpretation of natural phenomena is not in and of itself Sensualism; the Scholastics did the same, in good understanding with the Hierarchy. The Sensualistic, on the contrary, comes to light in the boldness, frankness, and unconditionedness with which an omnipresent natural life displaces the Beyond, and sets itself in the place of the supernatural. The realm of reason with which Giordano Bruno deals (*De la causa, principio ed uno*) is at the same time a realm of the senses, and the wonders to which Vanini (*De admirandis Naturæ, reginæ Deæque mortalium, arcanis*) points are owed not to "the eternal King," but to "the Queen of mortals."

The empirical path. By sober research, by careful observation of the phenomena (Tycho Brahe) and corresponding calculations, that path was at last marked out which alone could lead to a true knowledge of nature. The law of falling bodies on earth (Galileo) and the planetary orbits in the heavens (Kepler) showed clearly enough that the path had been found. The investigators who thus understood not merely how to open the eye, but also how to arm the eye (the telescope), then, in the name of science, asserted the right of the senses, and set in force facts whose incontrovertibility must at length subdue the imaginings of the Middle Ages, and shake Scholastic metaphysics in its foundations.

Were such efforts to be grasped, judged, and presented in a theory of knowledge framed to the needs of natural science, then it would doubtless above all be a matter of impressing two chief demands: thought's liberation from abstract theories (from *anticipationes naturæ* [anticipations of nature]), and the leading-back of knowledge to true experience (*interpretatio naturæ* [interpretation of nature]). By working against formalism, emphasizing "Induction," and bringing the concept of natural law into harmony with the demand of physics, Francis Bacon of Verulam (†1626; *Novum organum scientiarum*), though without a natural-scientific initiation, has nonetheless, in inspired traits, pointed out a new foundation, and marked the transition to a new age.

§ 3.

Advancing Empiricism soon discovered the misinterpretation of the a priori that lay hidden in the doctrine of “innate ideas.” Against this misinterpretation J. Locke (†1704) directed his “philosophical essay on the human understanding” (*An essay concerning human understanding in four books*), whose content we may here consider under the following points of view: the origin of “ideas,” the essence of “ideas,” and the knowledge of things.

a) *The origin of “ideas.”* There are no innate ideas. Even if it could be shown that there were propositions about whose universality all must agree, this would still prove nothing, so long as the universal acceptance of these propositions could be explained in another way. But so far are such propositions from being found, that nations at different levels of culture are even at odds about the very most important practical principles. If one sets forth the commandment “Whatever you would have others do to you, do also to them,” then everyone who has not heard the commandment before, but thinks it over, will of course ask: why? But to ask for the grounding of a commandment that is innate is a contradiction.

As regards the theoretical propositions, such as “Whatever is, is; it is impossible that one and the same thing can at the same time both be and not be,” children, idiots, and the uneducated are wholly unacquainted with their meaning. But if such principles really were innate to the understanding, then all would have to be aware of them from earliest childhood, for to be in the understanding is the same as to be in knowledge.

Likewise it is an evasion when, in order to defend innate ideas, one appeals to the fact that these ideas immediately become evident to consciousness as soon as a person begins to use his reason. The relation is precisely the reverse: it is not universal but particular propositions, such as “Sweet is not bitter,” of which one first of all becomes conscious when one begins to think. That theoretical and practical principles should be innate is on the whole just as absurd as that arts and sciences should be innate. It is therefore impossible to be born with ideas; the child’s soul is like a clean sheet of paper, as empty as a *tabula rasa* [a blank tablet].

Whence, then, does the understanding get its ideas? From experience. But experience is of a twofold kind: insofar as it is made by an observation of external objects conducted through the senses, we call it sensation, *Sensation*; insofar as it

rests on observation of our own understanding's activity, we call it the inner sense, *Reflection*. Sensation and Reflection are to be regarded as "the only channels that convey knowledge to the understanding, the only windows through which the light of ideas falls into the dark chamber of the soul."

b) The essence of "ideas." The ideas coming from experience are partly simple, partly compound.

The simple ideas furnish the material of knowledge, are, so to speak, the letters in the alphabet of existence. In that these simple ideas press themselves upon consciousness from without, the soul is passive, and takes up the impressions of the surrounding world as the mirror takes up the object's image; if, on the other hand, they are obtained through Reflection — as the idea of thought, the idea of will — the soul is active. The simple ideas are partly such as come to the understanding through a single sense: colors through the eye, tones through the ear, impenetrability through the sense of touch; partly such as are conveyed to it through several senses, as when space and motion are apprehended both by touch and by sight.

By the connections and compositions of the simple ideas the soul can now know the objects of the surrounding world, "just as in language, by manifold compositions of letters, one can form syllables and words"; but, in that the compound, complex ideas are referred to three chief classes — modes, substances, and relations — it becomes above all the task to give an account of the concept of substance.

The nominal essence indicates the relation between genus and species; the real essence, on the other hand, denotes the inner peculiarity of the existing thing. In the simple ideas and modes the real and the nominal essence are one and the same; with respect to "substances" they are different. That a surface bounded by three straight lines is a triangle expresses the unity of the real and the nominal essence. It is otherwise with the part of matter that forms the ring on my finger; on the real peculiarity of the non-sensible parts depend the properties of its color, weight, softness, hardness, and so on. After the observed properties the name "Gold" is formed, an expression that denotes the nominal but not the real essence.

By sensation and reflection we experience how a number of simple ideas come together in a peculiar connection, presuppose on that account a necessary ground of connection, and refer this ground to a substratum subsisting on its own, namely *substance*; but is it now possible to know substance?

c) *The knowledge of things.* As the bearer of the qualities by which the simple ideas are produced in us, substance can be known only in this, that a distinction is made between the properties that necessarily belong to the thing in itself, and prove the agreement of the simple ideas with the objects (*qualitates primariæ* [primary qualities]), and such properties — color, tone, taste, smell, warmth, cold — as do indeed proceed from the things' action upon the soul, but are nevertheless wholly different from the objective essence of the things (*qualitates secundariæ* [secondary qualities]).

In this way Locke would determine the opposition between real truth (*real truth*) and mental truth (*mental truth*); but although substance is distinguished from all other complex ideas precisely in this, that it has its archetype outside us — one does not connect a sheep's bleating with the representation of a horse —, and precisely therein makes known its objective reality, it is nevertheless impossible for us to penetrate into substantiality itself. What we call the essential does not bear upon the individual. "It is doubtless necessary that I be what I am: God and nature have formed me thus; but I know nothing that is essential to me, the individual, as individual: an accident, an illness, can bring about incredible changes." So the essential bears, then, upon the species; but it can by no means be the real essence that determines the species, since the real essence is unknown to us. We are referred to a collection of sensible qualities that we can observe; but even when our observations are conducted with the greatest possible accuracy, our knowledge is just as far from corresponding to that inner constitution of the thing from which these qualities follow "as a peasant's representation of the clock in Strasbourg is far from corresponding to the inner, artful structure of that remarkable machine."

What Locke had begun, Condillac (†1780; *Essai sur l'origine des connaissances humaines*) continued. By letting the two sources of knowledge — sensation and reflection — flow together in such a way that the latter vanishes into the former, and by laying a reinforced emphasis on sensation, Condillac arrived at the result that the so-called inner sense is only a reflex of the outer, and that consequently all expressions of spirit represent only modified sense-impressions. Once Sensualism, thus carried through, has first shown that the True is only something sensible, it lies near to reverse the proposition and say: only the sensible is the True. Here is a materialism for which everything spiritual is a figment (La Mettrie).

§ 4.

From presuppositions by which a one-sided standpoint is expressly designated, consequences can be developed partly in a coordinate, partly in a superordinate direction. To consequences in a direction coordinate with the standpoint belongs everything that unfolds its character, and raises its significance to an ever wider compass. In this sense Condillac and La Mettrie have driven the consequences of Sensualism to the extreme.

To consequences in a direction superordinate to the standpoint belong those that lead out beyond the standpoint itself, and thus either establish or at least introduce a new standpoint. In this sense Hume's (†1776) Scepticism (*A treatise of human nature*) is to be grasped as a higher consequence of Lockean Sensualism.

To test the validity of concepts, one must — herein Hume agrees with Locke — hold to experience. Those concepts that can prove their origin from sense-impressions (*impressions*), or at least from the reflections corresponding to these, ought to be acknowledged; those that cannot, are of spurious descent, and ought to be rejected.

According to Locke, "the idea of cause and effect" arises when, in considering the constant change of things, we observe how certain things — be they substances or qualities — begin to exist through the law-governed activity of another. But what validity now has this observation? whence do we know that two things stand to one another as cause to effect? *A priori* we cannot know it; for *a priori* knowledge is analytic, but the knowledge of the causal concept must be synthetic, since the effect is really something other than the cause. Neither do we know it from experience; for experience shows us only that the one fact partly follows the other in time (succession), partly touches the other in space (contiguity); but no experience can teach us that the one essentially follows from the other, as the effect from its cause.

To assert the validity of substance Locke had already referred to habit; this indication Hume follows: "Our inferences from experience are grounded solely on habit; we are accustomed (*the mind is carried by habit*) to see the one thing follow partly along with, partly after the other, and then habituate ourselves thereby to the representation that the one must be an effect of the other. Out of the relation of contiguity and succession our imagination forms the causal relation: *cum hoc aut post hoc, ergo propter hoc* [with this or after this, therefore because of this]."

That the threads of the investigation here run together in the question of the causal concept as in their nodal point, shows the sureness with which the task has been posed.

Once the causal concept has fallen, then the categories — force, substance, necessity, truth — fall as of themselves; the bonds of essence that were to hold things together must now all burst.

As proceeding from a cooperation of sensation and reflection, the concept “force” might, in Locke’s opinion, well have its validity; but how is it now possible to know force? It might at first glance seem as though the relation between soul and body furnished, in this respect, a reliable presupposition. In that certain bodily organs involuntarily obey our will, spirit does indeed act as force, and we need therefore only to become conscious of our voluntariness in order to become conscious of an expression of force. This is, however, a deceptive reflection; partly we do not know the means by which spirit acts upon the body; partly it is not, after all, all the body’s organs whose activity is subject to the will. Were force to be an object of experience, then — what is impossible — cause and effect would also have to be an object of experience.

By presenting substance as an Unknown, Locke had already introduced the doubt about its existence. How are we now to know substance? Were the validity of substantiality to admit of proof, then the inner necessary connection of the properties that in substance are united into unity would have to admit of proof; but with causality the necessary connection (*this idea of a necessary connexion*) has fallen away. To refer to the difference between original and derived properties does not help. The derived properties are all subjective, and thus have only existence in our apprehension; as for the original ones, they let themselves at last be resolved into one single one, namely “Solidity,” but Solidity is an empty word, since we, when all the other properties are suspended, cannot possibly make the Solid an object of any experience.

In reliance on the “inner sense,” Locke had still held fast to “the idea of will,” and acknowledged the self. But how should it now be possible to assure oneself of the reality of the I? Our feelings, thoughts, and representations cannot possibly be regarded as expressions of force of an I, when the category expression-of-force has no validity; they cannot possibly be referred to an acting self, as to their true cause, when the causal concept has no truth.

The remnant of reality that still attached, in Locke, to the concept of truth (*real truth*) has thus vanished: truth is gone, probability has stepped into its place. The I, the self, is then in reality nothing other than a figment, which arises in this, that an aggregate of many rapidly successive representations is laid under a substratum.

That a philosophy which subordinates thought to sensation, even to such a degree that concepts must lose their universal validity, that the laws of things must vanish before the rules of the association of ideas, the ground of reason before habit, truth before probability, the self-knowledge of the I before a deluding figment, is in itself neither tenable nor satisfying, goes without saying; nevertheless Hume's Scepticism, in contrast to dogmatic Materialism, is a higher power, a spiritual force whose attack upon thought can transform itself into a defense of thought.

B.

Idealism.

§ 5.

If Sensualism can be recognized by this, that it examines the senses in order to judge thought, then Idealism can in turn be recognized by this, that it makes thought the judge of the senses; if Sensualism sets things above consciousness, then Idealism reverses the relation, and sets consciousness above things.

In that Descartes (†1650; *Principia philosophiæ*) begins with doubt, he wishes, like Bacon, to cast off prejudices, and free the mind from blind trust in authority; but, in that by doubting everything (*de omnibus dubitandum est* [everything is to be doubted]) he can also draw into doubt the validity of natural things and of experience as well, he goes further than Bacon.

Since doubt is a work of thought, thought is, in the midst of doubt, raised above doubt; everything can be doubted, but the validity of the doubting thought cannot be drawn into doubt; to doubt doubt is to confirm doubt.

Empiricism, which begins with an unconditional reliance on the immediate sense-impression, ends consistently in Scepticism; for Scepticism is an activity of spirit in

which thought, after having stared itself blind on the sensible, incessantly comes to itself as a stranger, tears itself down, and cannot know its own essence.

In the idealistic doubting of everything, thought begins precisely by finding itself, in that it begins by removing the foreign, and shaking off the appendage of tradition. This doubting is then so far from losing itself in Scepticism that the thinker rather wishes to assure himself of the validity of everything that withstands the testing of thought. The thinker then not only sees the unity of his thought with being (*cogito ergo sum* [I think, therefore I am]); but also gains certainty that consciousness is borne, penetrated, and filled by an absolute being, by the Unconditioned, whose image is in the soul, whose forms (*ideæ innatæ* [innate ideas]) shine with a clarity that can proceed only from the Perfect.

In Descartes, however, Idealism is still restricted in this, that over against the being that is in thought there stands a material being opposite thought; to suspend this substantial separation, and transform thought and being into attributes in one and the same substance, is an advance owed to Spinoza (†1677). Insofar as the question here is of the validity of thought and its identity with being, Spinozism is decidedly Idealism.

As regards the soul's a priori self-activity, Leibniz (†1716) went a step further. In his "Nouveaux essais" he works against Lockean Sensualism, and frees the assumption of "innate ideas" from the misunderstanding that could justify Locke's objections. To the Sensualists' *nihil est in intellectu, quod non antea fuerit in sensu* [nothing is in the intellect that was not previously in sense], there is then added a *nisi intellectus ipse* [except the intellect itself]. That "ideas" are innate must not be misinterpreted as though at birth they lay ready-made in the soul, since on the contrary they are in it only according to disposition. This view is in essential connection with the doctrine of monads; as monad the soul is originally self-active, can receive no impression from without, but on the contrary develops a world in its interior.

Whereas Locke compared the soul to an unwritten tablet, Leibniz compares it to "a block of marble in which the veins preform the shape of the statue." The principle of contradiction (*principium contradictionis*), the proposition of sufficient reason (*principium rationis sufficientis*), and the so-called *principium indiscernibilium* belong among "the innate ideas." How Idealism, by thinking over the relation between the senses and the sensed, and pointing out the contradictions that everywhere accompany the cognition of an external, can transform the whole outer world into

a world of spirit, has been shown in particular by G. Berkeley (†1754; *A treatise concerning the principles of human knowledge*; and *Three dialogues between Hylas and Philonous*). — Convinced that it is the assumption of matter's unconditional existence that especially favors Scepticism and Atheism, Berkeley reckons this assumption among the most meaningless and confused that can ever arise in a human head.

Sensible things are such as are immediately (*immediately*) apprehended by the senses, whereas the cause of things, which cannot be sensed, must expressly be thought, and, in being thought, be in consciousness. If I see that the one part of the sky is red, the other blue, then I infer that there must be a cause of this color-difference; but the cause cannot be said to be a sensible thing (*or perceived by the Sense of Seeing*). Nor can I, when I hear various tones, be said to hear the cause of the tones; just as little as I, when by feeling I experience that a thing is hot or heavy, can be said to feel the cause of the heat or the weight.

Sensible things are aggregates of sensible qualities (*Combination of sensible Qualities*); these sensible qualities are not outside the soul, but in the soul. As little as one can ascribe to the needle a sensation of the pain that its prick causes us, so little can one ascribe warmth to the fire. To have a high degree of warmth, to be hot, is to be in pain; were the fire really hot, then it would have to burn itself as it burns us, it would then have to be in pain; but that is absurd.

Not only of the derived properties, but of the original ones too, it holds that they exist only in our consciousness. Were properties such as extension, figure, weight, density, motion something outside consciousness, then one and the same thing would have to be both large (namely when seen near) and small (insofar as seen at a great distance), both smooth and rough, both straight and crooked, and the same motion both slow and fast; but that is absurd.

Just as absurd is the opinion that the named properties should have a substratum; the substratum on which extension and the other properties should depend would, in order to bring about extension, have to have an extension already beforehand, and so on to infinity.

The infinite divisibility of matter is generally assumed. There is then in every finite matter an infinite number of parts that the senses do not yet apprehend; but the more the eye is sharpened, the more parts it sees, and the larger each part becomes: could the eye be sharpened to infinity, each smallest part would become infinitely

large. This materialism contradicts itself; for it follows from this that every body is in itself infinitely extended, that is to say: without any shape or figure. It is therefore not an essence of matter, but consciousness itself, that forms all changes in the bodies of which the visible world (*the visible World*) consists: matter is an idea.

As for mathematical natural philosophy, mathematics forgets to give a sufficient account of its principles. Arithmetic reckons with units (*Unities*), but is not able to show what "the unit" really is; in geometry the infinite divisibility of finite extension plays a chief role; but finite extension is, as already shown, only an idea in the soul. Since it is now evident that no one is able to separate infinitely many parts either in a finite line or in a finite surface or in a finite body, everyone can, by making clear to himself the idea of extension, convince himself that the alleged infinity is not present. What in everyday speech we call things, we must then, according to the given explanations, call ideas. It is doubtless a hard saying, if for daily use we should eat ideas, drink ideas, and clothe ourselves in ideas; but usage is one thing, truth another. That things outside us are transformed into ideas in our own soul is not to be understood as though the sensible representations rested on our own arbitrariness. We can arbitrarily open and close our eyes, but the shapes and colors that show themselves to our opened eyes affect us with necessity.

Our sensible sensations and representations must doubtless be referred to a cause independent of us. But since cause and effect must be of like kind, and since a thing cannot possibly impart to us what it does not itself possess, it is just as absurd to assume that a thing that does not itself have sensation should be able to arouse sensation, as that a brain-impression should be able to become a representation. There exist therefore no bodies, but only spirits; it is not a material cause, but an almighty spirit, that through all sense-images, representations, sensations, and impressions lets the finite spirits impart themselves to one another.

By thus explaining the sensible and abolishing the material, this Idealism has transformed itself into a Spiritualism that annihilates nature, appeals to the supernatural, and culminates in Theology. *It is therefore plain, that nothing can be more evident to any one, that is capable of the least Reflexion, than the Existence of GOD, or a Spirit who is intimately present to our Minds, producing in them all that variety of Ideas or Sensations, which continually affect us, on whom we have an absolute and intire Dependence, in short, in whom we live and move, and have our Being.* (*Principles of hum. knowl.* London

1734. S. 166).

§ 6.

Among the many mutually crossing approaches to a theory of knowledge, Scepticism and Dogmatism meet as conflicting results. In Scepticism (Hume) thought is at variance with itself, and experience stands as an unexplained fact; in Dogmatism (Chr. Wolff) the unity of being with thought is grasped so immediately that the rigid schema of the understanding does indeed dazzle by its proofs, but lacks the grounding. Against these mighty one-sidednesses I. Kant (†1804; *Kritik der reinen Vernunft*) comes forward.

Descartes's Idealism, which makes the existence of objects in space unprovable and doubtful, Kant calls the problematic; Berkeley's, which presents the external existence of things as false and impossible, he calls the dogmatic. Dogmatic Idealism is unavoidable when space is to be regarded as a property belonging to things in and for themselves; for then every thing for which such a space should furnish the condition is an absurdity. The ground of this Idealism is suspended in "the transcendental Aesthetic." Problematic Idealism, on the other hand, is first refuted when proof is furnished that even our inner experience, not doubted by Descartes, is possible only under the presupposition of outer experience.

Although the Kantian critique of reason, as a systematic whole in itself, has by no means come into being out of finite regard for this or that view, it can nonetheless, if one will, be grasped in such a way that the two parts of "the transcendental Doctrine of Elements," namely the Aesthetic and the Logic, may chiefly be said to be directed against Scepticism, its third part, namely the Dialectic, against Dogmatism, and "the transcendental Doctrine of Method" against both. We therefore treat, in this connection, the Kantian theory of knowledge insofar as it characterizes itself, by its opposition to the named extremes, as a "*transcendental*" Idealism. Thus:

1) Against Scepticism.

That all our knowledge begins with experience is beyond all doubt; but from this it does not yet follow that knowledge in each and all has its source from experience. There are a priori sensible intuitions, a priori categories of the understanding, and a priori ideas of reason.

a) “The transcendental Aesthetic” deals with the pure sensible intuitions: space and time. Space is the form of the outer sense, time of the inner. If we abstract from the objects outside us, we get space back as the pure, universal form; if we abstract from the changes observed by the inner sense, empty time remains.

That intuitions of space and time are a priori can be shown partly from a metaphysical, partly from a transcendental point of view. The metaphysical consideration proves that the intuitions space and time cannot possibly be borrowed from experience, since one must precisely presuppose them in order to be able to make an experience; it proves further that space and time are not concepts but intuitions: the individual spaces are contained as parts in universal space, likewise the individual times in universal time, whereas the universal concepts, on the contrary, always comprise the particular ones as members under themselves, never as parts within themselves. The transcendental consideration proves the a priori origin of space and time in an indirect way, in that it shows that certain sciences, such as, for example, pure mathematics, would be impossible if there were no universal and necessary propositions about space and time; but universal and necessary propositions are never had from experience, they are had only *a priori*.

b) “The transcendental Analytic” treats the pure concepts of the understanding. The understanding is, negatively determined, a non-sensible faculty of cognition; outside intuition there is only a cognition by concepts. To intuition as receptivity corresponds the spontaneity of thought: intuitions rest on “affections,” concepts on “functions.” Intuition bears immediately on the object, the concept, on the contrary, mediately by means of another representation. The understanding judges; the judgment is a mediate cognition, a representation of a representation.

When we then abstract from the content of a judgment, and look only at the bare form of the understanding, we find that the function of thought lets itself be brought under four titles, each of which again contains three moments. In judgments there lie, namely — insofar as they are divided, according to Quantity, into universal, particular, and singular — the categories: totality, plurality, unity; insofar as they are divided, according to Quality, into affirmative, negative, (limiting), the categories: reality, negation, limitation; insofar as they are divided, according to Relation, into categorical, hypothetical, and disjunctive, the categories: substance and inherence, cause and effect, reciprocity; and finally, when they are distinguished, according to Modality,

into problematic, assertoric, and apodictic, the categories: possibility, actuality, and necessity.

That these twelve categories, from which the rest let themselves be derived, are not owed to experience, but are a priori concepts, is seen from this, that these too are just as necessary conditions for the possibility of an experience as the pure intuitions. In and for themselves the categories are empty forms that get their material conveyed only through intuition; only when the sense-content of intuition is absorbed into the form of the understanding does experience come about. Yet a difficulty meets us here. The objects, which are of sensible nature, are heterogeneous with the concepts: how then does it come about that a posteriori sense-objects can be subsumed under pure concepts of the understanding, and judgments *a priori* be formed therefrom? This happens in that a third, which on the one side is a priori, on the other side sensible, steps between, namely, the pure intuitions: space and time. In order in this respect to bring the concept into intimate union with intuition, the imagination forms “the transcendental schema.” Thus Quantity has for its universal schema the time-series or number, so that the pure concept of magnitude meets intuition, in that we in imagination produce units, and thereby go from unity through plurality to totality. Quality’s schema is the time-content: the Real fills a given time, and, when the content of reality is gone, negation is intuited in the emptiness of time. The schema of the categories of relation is the time-order, for substantiality is the persistence of the Real in time, the members of causality follow one another with necessity in time, and reciprocity is the regular coexistence of two or more expressions of substance in time. The schema of Modality is the time-comprehension: the schema of possibility signifies a representation’s agreement with the conditions of time in general, the schema of actuality an object’s existence in a given time, and that of necessity an object’s being at all times.

Since the objects we can observe all together fall in time, they must necessarily also fall under those schemata of time. This is proved in “the Analytic of Principles.” At the head of the analytic judgments stands the principle of contradiction; but the highest principle of the synthetic judgments lays down that every possible experience “must stand under the conditions that are necessary for bringing the manifold impressions of intuition to synthetic unity.” α) All phenomena are then, since they can be apprehended only under the forms of space and time, extensive magnitudes; “the Axioms of Intuition.”

β) All phenomena are, since every sensation can be strengthened and weakened in a definite degree, intensive magnitudes; “the Anticipations of Perception.” γ) All phenomena are, according to the schema of the categories of relation, subject to necessary determinations of time; the substantial remains in time; the accidental changes in time; the temporal change of accidents expresses a relation between cause and effect; “the Analogies of Experience.” δ) Finally all phenomena are, in agreement with the schema of the categories of modality, determined in such a way that what agrees with the formal conditions of experience is possible; what agrees with its material conditions, actual; what exhibits universally valid conditions of experience, necessary; — “the Postulates of Empirical Thought.”

c) “The transcendental Dialectic” investigates the ideas of reason.

Our cognition begins with the senses, passes thence over to the understanding, and ends in reason as in its highest. If the understanding is the faculty of bringing phenomena under a unity by means of rules, then reason is in turn the faculty of bringing the rules of the understanding to unity under principles. The understanding develops the conditioned, reason points out the unconditioned; the understanding furnishes the premises, reason draws out the conclusion. From the three logical inferences of reason, namely: the categorical, the hypothetical, and the disjunctive, the three speculative ideas of reason are derived: the idea of the soul as a thinking substance (the psychological idea), the idea of the world as the aggregate of all phenomena (the cosmological idea), the idea of God as the highest condition for the possibility of all (the theological idea).

That the ideas of reason are not abstracted from experiences is seen immediately from this, that in the whole world of experience no object can be pointed out that corresponds to any of those ideas. That these ideas nonetheless have validity, namely a priori validity, is understood from this, that they are the indispensable lodestars of the understanding, the regulative principles of cognition. We order our subjective faculties by means of the idea of the soul, the infinite series of conditions by means of the idea of the world, the ascending steps of causes by means of the idea of God.

2) Against Dogmatism.

The a priori is, according to Kant, solely in our consciousness, and has nothing to do with the essence of things. Already “the transcendental Aesthetic” warns us against

regarding space and time as being outside us. Were one to set up the proposition that things are in space and time, then it would be a delusion; not in themselves, but only for us are things in space and time, and that in such a way that the phenomena for the outer sense are in space as well as in time, the phenomena for the inner sense only in time. Just as emphatically “the transcendental Analytic” impresses that the categories of the understanding have universal validity only insofar as they hold for us, in that we apply them to things as objects of experience, but not to things in and for themselves. In that we see objects through subjective forms, and apprehend them in subjective concepts, we are like those who see the colors of things through painted spectacles.

The discord between thinking and being that Kant thus brought about by impressing from first to last the separation of the thing as object of experience and the thing in itself (*das Ding an sich* [the thing in itself]) — a separation that is further illuminated by the way in which, with respect to *Phænomena* and *Noumena*, he demonstrates “the Amphiboly of the Concepts of Reflection” — is well suited to give uncritical Dogmatism a fundamental blow; this blow becomes especially palpable in the critique that the ideas of reason must undergo in “the transcendental Dialectic.”

The Dialectic, “*eine Logik des Scheins* [a logic of illusion],” is to clear up the illusions in which reason, by applying the categories of the understanding to the unconditioned, must necessarily entangle itself. This “transcendental illusion,” this optical self-deception of reason, shows itself in the different ideas of reason from a different side.

a) The Paralogisms of pure reason. Rational psychology makes the soul into “a soul-thing with the attribute of incorporeality (immateriality); into a single substance with the attribute of incorruptibility (incorruptibility); into a numerically identical intellectual substance with the predicate of personality; into a spaceless, thinking being with the predicate of immortality.” These propositions of rational psychology are sheer fabrications. At the ground of the four paralogisms belonging here can lie nothing other than the simple, in and for itself empty representation: “I think”; but this “I think” is neither intuition nor concept, it is only an act of consciousness that accompanies, bears, and connects all my representations and concepts. That I who think can always be regarded as subject, a something that does not merely, as a predicate, hang upon thought, is an apodictic, indeed even identical, proposition; but

it does not signify that I as object am a being or substance subsisting for myself. The proofs of immortality rest on deceptive inferences. "I can indeed separate my pure thinking ideally from my body; but from this it by no means follows that my thinking can also persist really, after being separated from the body."

b) The Antinomies of pure reason. To determine the chief sides from which the idea of the world shows itself, one is guided by the categories given in the table. In respect of the Quantitative, there is then here something to lay down about the totality of the world's times and spaces, and as regards Quality, something about the divisibility of matter; in respect of Relation the causality of the effects given in the world must be pointed out, and, as regards Modality, the conditions of the contingent are pursued until at last they are absorbed into the necessity of the whole.

At each of these points, assertion stands against assertion (antithesis against thesis) with proof of equal force. Against the thesis: "The world has a beginning in time and is enclosed within the limits of space," holds the antithesis: "The world is infinite in respect both of time and of space"; against the thesis: "Every composite substance in the world consists of simple parts," the antithesis: "No composite thing in the world consists of simple parts"; against the thesis: "Besides causality according to natural laws there holds in the world a causality of freedom," the antithesis: "there is no freedom, but everything in the world happens solely according to natural laws"; against the thesis: "To the world belongs something that, either as a part of it or as its cause, is a simply necessary being," the antithesis: "There exists no simply necessary being as world-cause, neither in the world nor outside it."

These cosmological antinomies then show us the dialectical struggle, the self-contradiction, in which reason entangles itself when by the idea of the world it wishes to think the objective essence of the world.

c) The Ideal of pure reason. "The category" is empty, but can nonetheless find its object in experience; "the idea," which has no object of experience at all, is thus more remote from objective reality than the category. "But still more than the idea, that seems to be removed from objective reality which I call the Ideal, and by which I understand the idea, not merely *in concreto* [in the concrete], but *in individuo* [in the individual], i.e. as a single thing determinable and determined by the idea alone." After having shown how reason determines its Ideal in different ways, namely as primal being (*ens originarium* [original being]), insofar as it has it in itself, as the

highest being (*ens summum* [highest being]), insofar as it has it above itself, and as the being of beings (*ens entium* [being of beings]), insofar as everything is conditioned by it, Kant passes over to an attack on the “speculative reason” of Theology, and in his critique of the dogmatic proofs of the existence of God drives the separation of thinking and being to the extreme.

Among the three proofs, the ontological, the cosmological, and the physico-theological, the emphasis must doubtless fall especially on the first. “On the impossibility of an ontological proof of the existence of God” the following should here be brought out. The proof is in brief this: “The most real being is possible; among the many realities belongs also existence; it therefore lies in the concept of the most real being that this being itself must necessarily exist.” One clarifies this by examples and dazzles by examples. When I suspend the predicate in an identical judgment, and keep the subject, then quite rightly a contradiction arises, and therefore one says that the predicate belongs to the subject with necessity. But if I suspend the subject together with the predicate, then no contradiction arises; “*denn es ist nichts mehr, welchem widersprochen werden könnte* [for there is then nothing more that could be contradicted].” To posit a triangle and yet suspend its three angles is a contradiction; but to suspend a triangle together with its three angles is no contradiction. So it is with the absolutely necessary being. God is almighty; almightiness cannot be suspended when you posit God; but when you say: God is not, there is neither almightiness nor any other predicate. Being is, as copula in the judgment, no real predicate. The actual contains in the concept no more than the merely possible. A hundred actual dollars contain not the least more than a hundred possible ones; for in the opposite case the concept would not be adequate. A concept loses not a single one of its properties because its object does not exist, and gains not a single property from its object’s being found existing.

“On the so famous ontological (Cartesian) proof, then, all trouble and labor is wasted; a person would, by mere ideas, become no richer in insight than a merchant in fortune by adding a few zeros to his cash balance.” From thinking to existence there is no speculative transition.

3) Transcendental Idealism.

Since Kant expressly understands by “a transcendental cognition” one that “does

not properly have to do with objects, but only with our cognition of objects, insofar as this is to be possible *a priori*,” it is already seen from this why he himself calls his Criticism a transcendental philosophy. This philosophy will now doubtless in its way assert the validity of the world of experience; but so would Berkeley’s Spiritualism too, in its way. The manner in which the moment of subjectivity becomes the overreaching thing in all our cognition characterizes the Kantian transcendental philosophy as Idealism.

In what relation this transcendental Idealism has expressly set itself both to Scepticism and to Dogmatism is expressed especially in “the Doctrine of Method,” which treats the pure reason’s *Discipline, Canon, Architectonic, and History*.

“Were one,” it says, “to ask the cold-blooded David Hume, properly created for the equilibrium of judgment, what then moved him, by scruples that only a laborious brooding could devise, to undermine the imagination so comforting and useful to men, that their rational insight suffices when the concept of the highest being is to be determined, then he would probably answer: Nothing, but the intention of bringing reason further in self-knowledge, and therewith a certain displeasure at the compulsion one would impose on reason, in that one prides oneself on it, and yet hinders it from making a candid confession about the weaknesses that it can discover in itself only by serious examination.”

Unsatisfying as Scepticism is in and for itself, so justified is it over against an uncritical Dogmatism that does not know what the understanding is capable of, and has not tested the limits of the possibility of cognition according to principles. “*Und so führt der Skeptiker, der Zuchtmeister des dogmatischen Vernünftlers, auf eine gesunde Kritik des Verstandes, ja der Vernunft selbst* [And thus the sceptic, the disciplinarian of the dogmatic rationalizer, leads to a sound critique of the understanding, indeed of reason itself].”

In pure cognition as science, reason must on the contrary always proceed dogmatically, i.e. conduct strict proofs from secure principles *a priori*; but to conduct strict proofs from secure principles *a priori* is not the same as (*Wolffs methodus mathematica* [Wolff’s mathematical method]) to imitate mathematics. Mathematics’s thoroughness rests on definitions, axioms, and demonstrations; philosophy’s on explications, deductions, and acroamatic proofs. It does not befit philosophy “*mit einem dogmatischen Gange zu strotzen und sich mit den Titeln und Bändern der Mathematik auszuschnücken*,

in deren Orden sie doch nicht gehört [to strut with a dogmatic gait and adorn itself with the titles and ribbons of mathematics, in whose order it does not after all belong].” The apodictic propositions (be they now provable, or else immediately certain) divide into Dogmata and Mathemata. A direct synthetic proposition from concepts is a *Dogma*, whereas a similar proposition by construction of concepts is a *Mathema*. Since there is now in the speculative use of pure reason not a single Dogma, every dogmatic method too — be it now borrowed from the mathematician, or in another way become a peculiar mannerism — is in itself unfitting. “*Denn sie verbirgt nur die Fehler und Irrthümer, und täuscht die Philosophie, deren eigentliche Absicht ist, alle Schritte der Vernunft in ihrem klärsten Lichte sehen zu lassen* [For it only conceals the faults and errors, and deceives philosophy, whose proper aim is to let all the steps of reason be seen in their clearest light].”

§ 7.

“In every experience two factors are set against each other: the I and the thing, the intelligence and its object. If one abstracts from the I, then one gets a thing *in and for itself*, and must then grasp the representation as a product of the object; if one abstracts from the object, one gets an I *in and for itself*, and must then hold to the self-active consciousness that produces its own content. The former is *Dogmatism*, the latter *Idealism*. These two are mutually incompatible; a third is not given: here one must choose. To judge between Dogmatism and Idealism, let one note the following: the I occurs in consciousness, the thing in itself is a fiction of consciousness. In that Dogmatism is to explain the origin of the representation from the thing in itself, it performs the dubious feat of going behind consciousness, and invoking being; but being effects only being, not consciousness; therefore only that standpoint can be true which is chosen, not in being, but in consciousness, not in the object, but in the I itself.” In this spirit J. G. Fichte (†1814) has drawn a consequence of Kantianism and (*Erste Einleitung* 1797) introduced his “*Wissenschaftslehre* [Doctrine of Science].”

While Fichte dissolves “the thing in itself,” holds fast to the I, and carries through *subjective Idealism*, the Kantian doctrine is illuminated from an opposite side, in that J. F. Herbart (Metaphysik) fixes attention on “the thing,” grasps even the I as a thing for itself, a “real with many properties” (Psychologie), and in his way develops a *critical Realism*. “The material of experience is the foundation of philosophy; but

as a mere given it still stands outside philosophy. What then is philosophy's first step, the act with which it begins? Experience has forced upon us concepts that do not let themselves be thought. They are doubtless thought in a way by everyday understanding; but it is an obscure and confused thinking that does not see through the conflicting distinguishing marks. The sharpened thinking, metaphysics's logical analysis, discovers in the concepts of experience (space, time, motion, and so on) contradictions, conflicting, mutually excluding marks. What is to be done here? These concepts cannot be thrown away; they are given to us, and we have only the given to hold to. Neither can they be kept, since they are unthinkable, in themselves impossible. The only way out is: we must rework them. *The reworking of the concepts of experience is the task of Speculation.*"

Returning, after this indication of the Herbartian direction, to Fichte, we must, in order to understand subjective Idealism, well imprint on ourselves the highest principles of "the Doctrine of Science"; for in these principles "the Doctrine of Science" is theory of knowledge.

α) *Thesis*. If one grants that the proposition $A = A$ is self-evident, then one grants at the same time consciousness's power to posit something. One posits not that A is, but only that, if A is, then it is A . If we now, instead of looking at what is posited, look at the positing one, or rather: at the identity of the positing one and what is posited, then the proposition $A = A$ transforms itself into $I = I$. Whereas instead of $A = A$ we could not say that A is, we can now, instead of $I = I$, say: I am. This self-grounded is the ground of all action in the human spirit, and thus the original distinguishing mark of the activity of consciousness in and for itself.

β) *Antithesis*. The proposition $\text{Non-}A \text{ not} = A$ is, as a free primal act, according to its form likewise unconditioned, but on the contrary, according to its content, its matter, conditioned, because the antithesis presupposes the thesis, because when a $\text{Non-}A$ is to be posited, an A must already beforehand have been posited. By the first principle, $A = A$, the form of the primal act was a positing; by the second it is a counter-positing. What $\text{Non-}A$ is, is not yet known; only this is known, that $\text{Non-}A$ is the opposite of A . But now A is posited by the I ; here only an I is presupposed: what is opposed to the I is thus $\text{Not-}I$.

γ) *Synthesis*. The third principle is, since it is determined by the two foregoing, almost entirely capable of receiving a proof. The task for the act expressed by the

third principle is given with the two foregoing, but not the task's solution. On the one side the I is completely suspended by the Not-I: the I cannot be posited insofar as the Not-I is posited. On the other side the Not-I, posited by the I, is itself an I, posited in consciousness. The I is thus not suspended by the Not-I; it is suspended, and yet nevertheless not suspended. This is the contradiction. For the solution of this contradiction we must seek to find an *X* in which the mutually excluding principles can be united. But how can being and not-being, reality and negation, be united with one another without annihilating one another? Answer: by mutual limitation! The *X* asked for is thus a barrier, and self-limitation the primal act of the I. Insofar as the essence of I-hood, the pure I, is grasped as a principle that develops itself in the empirical I's reciprocal action with a world of barriers, subjectivity has to such a degree gained the preponderance that herein is contained a natural summons to lay an emphasis of ideality on the objective too.

In his work "*Von der Weltseele*" F. W. J. Schelling (†1854) has, still with Fichte's presuppositions, sought to show how the concept of matter necessarily proceeds from the nature and intuition of the human spirit. "The mind (*das Gemüth* [the mind]) is the unity of an unlimited and a limiting force. Absence of barriers would, as well as absolute limitedness, make consciousness impossible. Only in that the force that strives out into the unlimited is limited by the opposite, while the limited one is conversely freed from its barriers, is feeling, observation, cognition thinkable. A corresponding thing is seen in nature. Not matter as matter, but the forces whose unity matter constitutes, is here the first. Matter is the ever-becoming product of attraction and repulsion. Matter is what it is by force; but force is the immaterial in matter, force in nature is that which can be compared with spirit. Nature and spirit must originally be united in a higher identity. The spirit's organ for the apprehension of nature is intuition; it is intuition that takes into possession the space bounded and filled by attractive and repulsive forces."

With these thoughts Schelling has already trodden the objective ground of natural philosophy. "All knowledge," it says (*System des transcendentalen Idealismus*), "rests on the agreement of a subject with an object. The aggregate of the merely objective is nature; the aggregate of the merely subjective is the I or the intelligence. For the union of both sides two ways are possible; either one makes nature the first, and asks how the intelligent comes to it, i.e. one strives to interpret it in pure forms of

thought — natural philosophy; or one makes the subject the first, and asks how the objects proceed from the subject — transcendental philosophy. All philosophy must aim either at making an intelligence out of nature, or a nature out of the intelligence. Just as transcendental philosophy has to subordinate the real to the ideal, so natural philosophy must seek to explain the ideal from the real. But both are only the two poles of one and the same knowledge, which mutually seek each other; therefore one must also, when one starts from the one pole, necessarily come to the other.”

“All the parts of philosophy must be presented in one continuity, and the whole of philosophy must be presented as what it is, namely as the continuous history of consciousness, for which what is deposited in experience serves only, so to speak, as monument and as document.”

Schelling’s transcendental Idealism can now be regarded as forerunner of Hegel’s “*Phänomenologie des Geistes* [Phenomenology of Spirit]”; what Schelling promised, Hegel (†1831) fulfilled.

“Consciousness has in general, according as the object shows itself, three stages. The object is namely either an object standing over against the I, or it is the I itself, or something objective that nevertheless belongs just as much to the I, to thought.” The three stages are thus: Consciousness, Self-consciousness, Reason.

a) *Consciousness*. At the first stage consciousness is sensing, observing, understanding.

α) *The sensing consciousness is immediate certainty of an external object*. The expression for such an object’s universality is, *that it is, and is this, now according to time, here according to space*. The object is thereby wholly different from all other objects, and for itself sufficiently determined. But this Now is no more, another has stepped into its place, which however is also a Now: the Now is, in its vanishing, something abiding, namely the universal. This Here, which I mean and point out, has a right, a left, an above, a below, a behind, a before, to infinity. This Here is thus not the single, immediately determined, but: now here, now here, now here! an aggregate of Many, and in these Many nevertheless the One, thus the universal.

β) The universal, insofar as it still hovers between sensuousness and reflection, is object for the *observing* consciousness; *here is the thing with its properties*. The sensible properties are at once immediately each for itself, and yet in relation to one another, belong to the thing as this single thing, and are yet so universal that they, separated

from one another, can be found in manifold other things. Thing and properties change, and yet have in this change their subsistence: the changeable is an outer, the subsisting an inner.

γ) Insofar as the object is an inner with its outer, a force in its expression, it is there for the *understanding* consciousness. The understanding sees in the changing outer of things a series of phenomena whose inner consists in a system of abiding relations: the laws. Things are under the laws, and the laws are the laws of things; things and laws are two sides of the same: the True, the essence of things, is thought, the concept.

b) *Self-consciousness*. In that consciousness turns toward thought as thought, toward essence as essence, toward the inner as inner, it gets its own reflection and thereby itself as object. Self-consciousness has in its formation or movement three stages: desire, the relation of ruling and serving, universal self-consciousness.

α) *In desire self-consciousness relates to itself as single, solely existing self-consciousness*; it is a selfless object that is to satisfy the craving; but, in that the object is consumed, and satisfaction sets in, consciousness has in its self-feeling understood that it, as subjective, must at the same time essentially be objective.

β) The concept of self-consciousness as a subject that is at the same time an object finds its complete expression in this, that self-consciousness sees in its object another self-consciousness. In that the two self-consciousnesses set over against each other are each according to their concept independent, the tension arises between being master and being servant. The servant is selfless, insofar as his self is a moment in the master's consciousness; but the master too is selfless, insofar as his being master rests on his having a servant; he is master only by means of the servant. With this reciprocity self-consciousness makes the transition to articulated universal will, to positive freedom.

γ) *In universal self-consciousness the individual knows himself* as serving the will of the many, in that he essentially serves himself. Here there is not a sum of wills, but the many wills are moments in the universal will. This self-consciousness is the foundation for all virtues: those of love, honor, friendship, bravery, sacrifice, distinction, and so on.

c) *Reason*. Reason is the highest union of consciousness and self-consciousness in knowledge of the object and knowledge of itself. Reason is the certainty that its

determinations are just as much objective, determinations of the essence of things, as that they are the subject's own thoughts. Fichte's "I" and Herbart's "real" have hereby become moments; reason's knowledge is not merely subjective certainty, but truth; but truth is unity of certainty and objectivity, of knowledge and being.

"The goal, absolute knowledge, or the spirit knowing itself as spirit, has for its path the recollection of the spirits as they are in themselves, and accomplish the organization of their realm. Their preservation, in respect of their free existence appearing in the form of contingency, is history, but, in respect of their conceived organization, the phenomenal knowledge's science; both together, the conceived history, form the recollection and the Golgotha of absolute spirit, the actuality, truth, and certainty of its throne, without which it would be the lifeless, solitary; only out of the chalice of this realm of spirits foams up for it its infinity."

C.

Factual Knowledge.

§ 8.

If we now look back on the theories of knowledge dealt with here, the sensualistic as well as the idealistic, then it is quite striking to us that not a single one among them all satisfies "sound understanding" in its consequences, while they nevertheless in their cooperation — insofar as each on its own most forcefully asserts its side of the matter — as it were unite in giving "sound human understanding" its right.

From this it cannot now be concluded that "sound understanding" is wiser than philosophy, but only that it, with the sureness of instinct, holds fast to the members whose mutual relation philosophy wishes to explain. When philosophy, then, instead of clearing up the relation of the members, explains away or bungles an essential member, "sound understanding" senses mischief, and protests.

"Sound understanding" readily grants that one cannot become conscious of a surrounding world without taking up its impressions and corresponding images

into one's circle of representation; but it maintains at the same time that the world we become conscious of must, as truly as it is a real world, have a real existence independent of our consciousness.